Tourism, Creativity and Development

Edited by
Greg Richards and
Julie Wilson

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Destinations across the world are beginning to replace or supplement culture-led development strategies with creative development. This book critically analyzes the impact and effectiveness of creative strategies in tourism development and charts the emergence of 'creative tourism'. Why has 'creativity' become such an important aspect of development strategies and of tourism development in particular? Why is this happening now, apparently simultaneously, in so many destinations across the globe? What is the difference between cultural tourism and creative tourism? These are among the important questions this book seeks to answer.

It critically examines the developing relationship between tourism and creativity, the articulation of the 'creative turn' in tourism, and the impact this has on theoretical perspectives and practical approaches to tourism development. A wide range of examples from Europe, North America, Asia, Australia and Africa explore the interface between tourism and creativity including: creative spaces and places such as cultural and creative clusters and ethnic precincts; the role of the creative industries and entrepreneurs in the creation of experiences; creativity and rural areas; the 'creative class' and tourism; lifestyle, creativity and tourism, and marketing creative tourism destinations. The relationship between individual and collective forms of creativity and the widely differing forms of modern tourism are also discussed. In the concluding section of the book the contribution of creativity to tourism and to development strategies in general is assessed, and areas for future research are outlined.

The diverse multidisciplinary contributions link theory and practice, and demonstrate the strengths and weaknesses of creativity as a tourism development strategy and marketing tool. It is the first exploration of the relationship between tourism and creativity and its consequences for tourism development in different parts of the world.

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For Edna Margaret Mary Wilson

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Preface

This book forms part of a long-term research programme on the relationship between tourism, culture, creativity and development, supported by ongoing empirical research in many different countries. The basic research has been supported by a number of different research groups of the Association for Tourism and Leisure Education (ATLAS), including the Cultural Tourism Research Project, the Cultural Capitals Research Group, the Tourism and Gastronomy Group and the Backpackers Research Group. In particular, the numerous surveys and publications of the ATLAS Cultural Tourism Project since its inception in 1991 have provided the raw material which highlighted the role of creativity in the burgeoning cultural tourism market, and which provided a platform for later research on the role of cultural events.

Specific development projects have also helped to shape our thinking on the relationship between tourism and creativity. In particular the EUROTEX project (1997–9) funded by DGXVI of the European Commission led to the practical development of creative tourism pilot projects in Finland, Portugal and Greece. Broadening perspectives on the development of creative landscapes were facilitated through the CIUTAT project (2003–7). Work carried out for the UK Northern Way programme on cultural tourism development in 2006 helped shape our thinking about the practical application of creative development in tourism.

Over the years, a great many people and organizations have helped to support our work and to stimulate creative thought. This list is not exhaustive, but the following have played key roles in the research programme (apologies to anybody we have inadvertently overlooked):

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Greg Richards and Julie Wilson
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1 Tourism development trajectories

From culture to creativity?

Greg Richards and Julie Wilson

The growing synergy of tourism and culture has been one of the major themes in tourism development and marketing in recent years. Tourism destinations seeking to distinguish themselves from their increasingly numerous competitors have turned to culture as a means of distinction, and culture has increasingly been linked to tourism as a means of generating income and jobs (Richards 2001). The growth of 'cultural tourism' has been one of the major trends in global tourism in the past three decades and is still seen as one of the major growth areas for the future (European Travel Commission/World Tourism Organization 2005).

The apparent success of culture-led or cultural development strategies has encouraged more cities, regions and nations to use the combination of culture and tourism. Richards (2001) shows that the supply of cultural attractions grew faster than cultural demand during the 1990s. This has led to growing competition between destinations for cultural consumers, stimulating the creation of more distinctive and more impressive cultural developments. There is an increasing problem of 'serial reproduction' (Harvey 1989; Richards and Wilson 2006) or 'McGuggenheimization' (Honigsbaum 2001) of culture, and it can be argued that cultural development alone is no longer sufficient to create distinction between destinations.

Destinations are therefore beginning to replace or supplement culture-led development strategies with creative development. Florida's (2002) concept of the 'creative class' has been wholeheartedly embraced by a wide range of different regions seeking to capitalize on their creative resources. Creativity is also increasingly being applied to the tourism sphere. VisitBritain (2006), the national tourist office for Great Britain, has now identified 'creative tourism' as a major growth area. Questions about the development of creative tourism have also been asked in the British Houses of Parliament (Hansard 2006). The European Travel Commission/World Tourism Organization report on *City Tourism and Culture* (2005) also underlined the development potential of 'creative cities' as tourism attractions. Creative approaches to tourism are also being actively developed by commercial operators, in countries as far apart as New Zealand (see Chapter 9), South Africa (Chapter 15) and Spain (Chapter 8).

Why has 'creativity' become such an important aspect of development strategies in general, and of tourism development in particular? Why is this happening now, apparently simultaneously, in so many destinations across the globe? What is the difference between cultural tourism and creative tourism? These are important questions we will seek to answer in this chapter, before exploring different aspects of the development of creativity in tourism in the chapters that follow. The aim of this volume is to examine critically the developing relationship between tourism and creativity, the articulation of the 'creative turn' in tourism, and the impact this has on theoretical perspectives and practical approaches to tourism development.

Until relatively recently, the tourism industry had apparently made relatively little use of creative approaches to development or engaged in real innovation (Chapter 8). The majority of tourism products continued to be based on relatively static modes of consumption, and tourism remains largely based on models emphasizing traditional factors of production (such as sun, sea and sand). In recent years, however, signs of change have emerged as more attention has been paid to experience production and creativity as an element of both tourism consumption and production. In effect, there also seems to have been a shift in the power relations in the tourism production system, with the role of the consumer changing from that of mere receiver of ready-made products into the co-producer of tourism experiences. In this new scenario, the consumer is able to exercise more creativity and consumption skills, which in turn forces the erstwhile producers to be more creative in (co-)producing tourism experiences. To examine the reasons why creativity has become such a popular development strategy, it is useful to examine the reasons why culture and tourism have become so closely integrated in recent decades, and why the 'cultural turn' in tourism later developed into the 'creative turn'.

From cultural to creative production

As Evans outlines in Chapter 4, culture-led development first came to prominence in the late 1970s, as a wide range of places, most significantly large cities, were struggling to deal with the consequences of economic restructuring. The need to replace 'traditional' jobs in manufacturing (or in the case of rural areas in primary industry) led to a search for alternatives. These were invariably found in the rapidly expanding service sector, with areas such as culture, tourism, banking and finance, and research and development being among the most important. Hannigan shows in Chapter 3 how the entertainment industry provided one potential redevelopment strategy, as cities built shopping malls, theme parks and other relatively safe forms of consumption. However, as the 'fantasy city' model began to show signs of waning, culture, creativity and tourism in particular became sectors favoured by a large number of cities and regions. As well as being growth areas, they also offered the potential to develop employment and project a

new image of the region to the outside world. Glasgow, Toronto, Barcelona, Singapore and Sydney are just a few of the cities examined in this volume which have employed culture in their restructuring strategies. In many cases, the development of culture and tourism went hand-in-hand, as cultural facilities became important flagships which attracted tourism, and tourists contributed the money which supported the expansion of culture. The apparently flawless symmetry of this couplet led many other cities and regions to adopt the culture-led or culture and tourism-led regeneration model. In addition, cultural and tourism bodies threw their weight behind such models (cf. UNESCO's Cultural Tourism Programme, cultural tourism developments funded by the European Union and the White House Report on Cultural Tourism in the USA). Cultural tourism arguably became a 'good' form of tourism, widely viewed as sustainable and supporting local culture (Richards 2001). Cultural tourism also became equated with 'quality tourism'; a factor increasingly important in areas which are experiencing decreasing returns from traditional forms of mass tourism (see Russo and Arias Sans, Chapter 10).

The expanded role for culture in tourism development mirrored the growth of culture as a factor of development in general. Zukin (1995) showed how the growth of culture-led development was tied to the workings of the symbolic economy. Culture provided the symbols, such as museums, art galleries and iconic architecture, which could be used to increase land values and stimulate business activity. This growth in turn supported employment in the cultural sector, strengthening its lobbying for more investment in culture. This produced powerful arguments to preserve the heritage of the past and expand contemporary culture in order to maximize the 'real cultural capital' of places. Culture has therefore come to play an important role in distinguishing places from each other. This is increasingly essential in a globalizing world where place competition is fierce, and cities and regions strive to create distinctive images for themselves (Richards and Wilson 2004a).

One of the problems inherent in cultural distinction strategies is that many places adopt similar strategies (often copying or 'borrowing' ideas from one another), and therefore even 'culture' begins to lack distinction. The growth of 'serial reproduction' of culture epitomized by McGuggenheimization (Honigsbaum 2001) and the spread of signature architecture to cities around the world makes it harder and more expensive to use material culture to distinguish places (Richards and Wilson 2006).

In the McGuggenheim marketplace, it is no longer enough to have culture – one has to have a cultural brand in order to compete (Evans 2003). The need to bundle and identify cultural resources led to the development of 'cultural quarters', 'cultural districts', 'creative clusters' or 'creative districts', where cultural and creative producers were clustered in order to generate a 'buzz'. In such a climate, the 'creative turn' became almost a logical successor to the cultural development process of previous decades.

The creative turn in culture-led development was therefore stimulated by a number of basic factors. First, the development of the symbolic economy (Lash and Urry 1994) privileged creativity over cultural products. Second, regions and cities have increasingly used culture as a form of valorization (Ray 1998). Third, the sheer proliferation of 'real cultural capital' created the need to find new cultural signs to create distinction in an increasingly crowded marketplace. Finally, places which do not have a rich built heritage or iconic architecture and therefore lack the 'real cultural capital' needed to find a new means of cultural development.

As a result, a wide range of cities and regions found the creative development option very attractive. Places which had already been down the road of culture-led redevelopment began to examine creativity as a added dimension of cultural development which could help them shine on the global stage. At the same time, places which lacked the 'hard' cultural resources to compete effectively in the cultural arena saw creativity as one of the few alternatives to cultural development.

Creative strategies therefore emerged in cities such as London and New York, which already had an overpowering store of cultural resources; in more modest 'cultural capitals' such as Barcelona, Porto and Graz; and in seemingly unlikely cultural centres such as Huddersfield, Winnepeg, Taipei and Lille (e.g. Pappalepore 2007). Whole countries and regions are now profiling themselves as 'creative'. Perhaps the first example was Australia, which in drafting its first national cultural policy in 1994, positioned itself as a 'Creative Nation', aiming to:

> increase the comfort and enjoyment of Australian life. It is to heighten our experience and add to our security and well-being, in that it pursues similar ends to any social policy. By shoring up our heritage, in new or expanded national institutions and adapting technology to its preservation and dissemination, by creating new avenues for artistic and intellectual growth and expression and by supporting our artists and writers, we enable ourselves to ride the wave of global change in a way that safeguards and promotes our national culture.
>
> (Commonwealth of Australia 1994)

The Helsinki region in Finland now positions itself as 'the most creative region in Europe', thanks to its high rating for research and development and ICT employment in a study of creativity in European regions by Florida and Tinagli (2004). In the United Kingdom, a number of regions are striving to develop a creative brand, including Northern Ireland, Yorkshire and the East of England.

The inspirations for such creative development strategies can be located in the general idea that creativity could deliver wider benefits than a cultural strategy alone. Culture, seen as relatively static and generally anchored in the past, needed creativity to inject dynamism and release the potential of

people and places. The focus of many development strategies has therefore shifted from the cultural industries to the creative industries.

The term 'cultural industries' was initially coined in the 1940s by Horkheimer and Adorno (1972), who were key members of the Frankfurt School, and fiercely critical of the commodification of art. They saw the cultural industries as the producers of repetitive cultural products for capitalist mass consumption. However, policymakers later began to use the 'cultural industries' as a more inclusive concept of culture than traditional or 'highbrow' approaches which dominated discussions of public intervention in the cultural field. The first practical application of the term seems to stem from the 1980s when the Greater London Council (GLC) began using the term 'cultural industries' to refer to cultural activities which fell outside the public funding system (O'Connor 1999). This concept was taken up by other British cities and also by countries such as Germany and Australia. The emphasis of the cultural industries approach fell on the creation of employment and economic impact. As Ratzenböck *et al.* (2004: 9) argue:

> All these concepts have a pragmatic orientation in common. None of the used definitions originate from academic discourses but they are rather the result of economic policy and highly site-related concept formations. The notion of cultural industries has been very much driven by those involved in framing policy.

The transformation of the 'cultural industries' into the 'creative industries' arguably stems from the 'media boom' of the 1990s, where emerging sectors of cultural production, such as multimedia and software production, the audio-visual industries, architecture and design became increasingly hard to encompass within traditionally defined sectors of the cultural industries (Ratzenböck *et al.* 2004). The term 'creative industries' was apparently first used by the UK Creative Industries Task Force (CITF) in its *Mapping Document* (1997) which defined the creative industries as 'those activities which have their origin in individual creativity, skill and talent, and which have a potential for wealth and job creation through the generation and exploitation of intellectual property' (CITF 2001: 5).

This approach has been followed by a number of other countries and regions, but not everybody is happy with the shift from culture to creativity. For example, Finland decided to use the term 'cultural sector' rather than 'creative industries', because the latter was seen as being too narrow, and linked too closely to intellectual property issues. Koivunen (2005: 29) argued that:

> The concept of the 'cultural sector' covers creative work in different branches of the arts in the traditional field of the arts and culture, right through to distribution. The 'creative sector' is a parallel concept to the 'cultural sector', which appears particularly in the English-speaking

> world and in practice often approaches the concept of the 'copyright industry' in its extent.

Similar discussions surround the relationship between creativity and innovation. Again, the Finnish approach to this question is fairly broad: 'Creativity involves producing new meaning and linking things together in new ways. Creativity is not only connected with art, culture and science, but with all forms of human activity' (29–30).

Whereas:

> 'Innovation' is the introduction of new creations or bringing the meaning of new creation into common use by society. This may happen through the *productization* [sic] of creative meaning, i.e. by the production of creative products. Creativity emerges in the right conditions and in the right operating environment. Innovations are thus consolidation processes in creative meaning combined with changes in social behaviour.
>
> (30)

Some of the contributions to the current volume make it clear that such discussions continue. For example Evans (Chapter 4) argues that some countries have deliberately avoided the creative label, and in Chapter 15 Rogerson illustrates the fact that 'Creative South Africa' is being developed as part of a wider cultural strategy.

The shift from cultural to creative industries is not merely an addition of new sectors to the former. By combining the 'arts' with industrial production, the creative industries concept also challenges previous dichotomies between high and popular culture or elite and mass culture (Cunningham and Hartley 2001). This shift might also be interpreted as an attempt to overcome the 'instrumental–intrinsic divide' in approaches to culture noted by Belfiore and Bennett (2006: 6–7). They show how the perceived 'instrumentalization' of culture has led to calls for a return to the 'art for art's sake principle' as the guiding rationale for cultural policy. Those in the cultural sector arguing for a more intrinsic approach to cultural policy say that:

> the language of government policy towards the arts does not recognize their special nature, but treats them as if they were no different from any other economic sector. It is no accident that museums, galleries and theatres are rolled up by government ministers into the one economic/industrial category – the 'creative industries'.

However, this 'instrumental' approach has proved popular with policymakers, particularly in large cities. As Hannigan outlines in Chapter 3, creative approaches were applied to urban policy by Charles Landry and Franco Bianchini (1995) in their *Comedia* report on *The Creative City*, and

Landry (2000) later crystallized these ideas into a 'toolkit' for urban managers. The widespread influence of the creative economy approach can be judged from the recent report on *The Economy of Culture in Europe* (KEA European Affairs, 2006), which provides a review of the cultural economy policies of EU countries, most of which now include creativity in their definitions of cultural economy. The report proposes that Europe should move towards becoming more creative in order to meet growing competition from other world regions. The definitions used in this report separate the cultural and creative sectors. The 'cultural sector' includes industrial and non-industrial sectors and culture constitutes a final product of consumption, which can be consumed in situ (for example at a concert) or packaged for mass distribution (as a CD, for example). The 'creative sector' provides inputs for the production process of other economic sectors and becomes a 'creative' input in the production of non-cultural goods (such as fashion, design, etc.). In this view, culture is an 'input' to the creative sector; a raw material for creative production.

The creative class

At about the same time as the creative industries were being touted as a solution to the problems of urban redevelopment, other studies began to identify the emergence of the mobile, creative consumer. In the social sciences in general, increasing attention is now being paid to mobility (Sheller and Urry 2004), and particularly to the movements and influence of 'transnational elites' (Willis *et al.* 2002). As cities and regions compete to attract these mobile elites, there is a need to profile their members, their motivations and drivers. A number of studies have pointed out the links between mobile transnational elites and fast-growing creative sectors. In the United States, Ray and Anderson (2000) argued that the postmaterialist 'cultural creatives' accounted for about 26 per cent of the American population, and were driving the demand for creative activities and 'green' products. However, the most important boost to the application of creative strategies came with the publication of Richard Florida's *The Rise of the Creative Class* (2002), in which he argued that the basis of economic advantage has shifted away from basic factors of production, such as raw materials or cheap labour, towards human creativity. Cities and regions therefore have to develop, attract and retain creative people who can stimulate innovation and develop the technology-intensive industries which power economic growth. These creative people collectively make up the 'creative class'. A number of chapters in the current volume examine different aspects of the creative class concept and its relationship to tourism (see particularly Hodes *et al.*, Chapter 11 and Collins and Kunz, Chapter 13). At a very basic level, however, what Florida has done is to popularize the notion of mobile elites, giving them a more snappy label and linking them to specific 'sexy' economic sectors.

Crucially, Florida made the link between creative production and consumption, arguing that the 'creative class' were not just important for the production of creativity, but also its biggest consumers. This relates very closely to evidence from the ATLAS Cultural Tourism Project, which has consistently shown the important role played by those employed in the cultural and creative sectors in consuming cultural tourism (Richards 2007).

Florida also emphasizes that what is important to the creative class is the 'quality of place', which combines factors such as openness, diversity, atmosphere, street culture and environmental quality. These relatively intangible factors are now arguably more important than traditional cultural institutions such as opera houses or ballet companies in the locational decisions of creative people. One might assume, therefore, that tourists would also be attracted to such places, since many tourists are in search of 'atmosphere' and difference. As the ATLAS Cultural Tourism Research Project has shown over the past 15 years, there has been a shift away from specific cultural attractions (such as monuments and museums) towards intangible factors such as 'atmosphere', gastronomy and linguistic diversity in the attractiveness of places (Richards 2007). This also applies to the development of leisure facilities. Hannigan argues in Chapter 3 that the commercialized leisure attractions of the 'fantasy city' are no longer sufficiently engaging for the creative class, who seek instead the 'controlled edge' of urban areas in transition.

A further interesting feature of Florida's work is the link that he makes between the growth of the creative class and the search for experience. 'Experiences are replacing goods and services because they stimulate our creative faculties and enhance our creative capacities' (2002: 168). Echoing Pine and Gilmore (1999), he warns of the dangers of experiences becoming commodified and places becoming less 'authentic'. The ability of places to provide the unique experiences that attract people is seen as vital to their economic health, to the extent that 'place is becoming the central organizing unit of our economy' (Florida 2002: 224). The combination of where we live and what we do has become the main element of our identity, and this turns place into an important source of status, replacing abstract 'cultural capital' and embedding 'creative capital' more firmly into concrete places.

However, there has also been much criticism of Florida's work, mostly centring on the identification of the creatives as a 'class', and the various indicators used to measure creativity. Peck (2005) provides a detailed review of the issues raised with the creative class concept. The different types of criticism made of Florida's work can be summarized briefly as follows:

The definition of the 'creative class'

In particular, many researchers have criticized the lumping together of widely disparate activities, such as the performing arts and technological

innovation into a single 'class'. In fact, it can be argued that there are many different class factions who make up Florida's creative class, many of whom have opposing interests.

There are also doubts about the inclusion of such a large proportion of the working population in the creative class. In the different contributions to the edited volume by Franke and Verhagen (2005) on *Creativity and the City*, for example, contributors quote widely differing figures for the extent of the creative class in the Netherlands. At one extreme is Florida's own estimate that the Dutch creative class accounts for 30–40 per cent of the working population, whereas Dutch scholars provide figures varying between 13 per cent (in the widest definition) to less than 2 per cent (a narrow definition of the 'core' creatives). In particular, there is much criticism of Florida's inclusion of high-technology workers in the creative class.

Issues of diversity

The minority and countercultural groups championed by Florida as creators of diversity are arguably being overtaken by commodification and gentrification. Howell (2005: 32) argues that 'bohemian' or 'countercultural' lifestyles, such as skateboarders in Philadelphia's Love Park, are 'becoming institutionalized as instruments of urban development', a phenomenon also witnessed in Barcelona's Plaça dels Angels. This is an argument taken up by Hannigan in Chapter 3 of this volume.

Binnie (2004) also points out that the producers of diversity also face problems trying to live up to their role:

> These urban transformations clearly bring benefits. But what are the costs? It seems that these are borne by those whose presence in urban space is more fragile and tentative: the disadvantaged, the poor, or those who are unable or unwilling to conform to a certain standard – not having the right kind of body and cultural capital for the new hip urban gay identity that is promoted on lifestyle programmes.

The relationship between creativity and economic growth

To some critics, Florida's suggestion that increased creativity stimulates economic development seems to be a chicken and egg argument. What comes first – employment or creative people? Wealthy places, it could be argued, are more likely to have the cultural facilities that might attract the creative class, so it might be that creativity follows economic development. As Peck (2005) notes, many of the relationships put forward by Florida are based on correlations, rather than causality.

Misreading the causes of economic growth

Some cities which score high on the creativity index have not performed as well as Florida has suggested, particularly in terms of job creation, and in some cases top 'creative cities' are actually losing population. However, Florida (2005) argues it is the quality of jobs that counts, not the number.

The indices of creativity

One of the key elements of Florida's work was the development of indicators which could be used to measure the creativity of different places and therefore produce rankings of creative places. These creativity league tables created immediate interest from cities at the top of the table, which used their high rankings to market themselves as creative cities, while cities lower down began to devise strategies to improve their rankings. Florida's analysis largely rests upon the correlations between indices of what have been described as the 'three Ts' of economic growth: talent (measured by the percentage of residents with a bachelor's degree), tolerance (percentage of the population that is foreign-born) and technology (employment in high-technology industries). It has been argued that the correlation between technology, well educated residents, foreign born population and the presence of artists is hardly surprising. The technology index tends to be highest in large cities, which also tend to attract more immigration and have a larger cultural sector. The indices also seem to underrate some places which are perceived as being relatively creative. For example, in the study of creativity in European countries (Florida and Tinagli 2004), Italy rated very low, and yet the country is famed for its design and fashion industries. It therefore seems to be questionable what Florida's indices are actually measuring.

In the realm of tourism, one would expect that cities which score high on Florida's creativity indices would also attract more visitors as they become more attractive to the creative class. As a small test of this idea, we looked at the creativity rankings produced for a DEMOS (2003) study of UK cities. In this study, Manchester ranked as the most creative of 40 British cities in terms of its 'bohemian index', above such cultural tourism icons as London and Edinburgh.

However, a rank correlation analysis of the creativity index and the change in overseas visitor numbers for 12 of these cities for which data are available indicates a fairly weak negative relationship (Table 1.1). The rank correlation between creativity and the change in tourist numbers was –0.125, indicating that cities which ranked higher in terms of creativity actually had less overseas tourism growth between 2000 and 2003. This does not necessarily mean that creativity does not attract tourists, but it may show that the indicators used by Florida to measure creativity do not say much about the attractiveness of a city for tourism. It is clear, for example, that major cities such London have been losing ground in cultural image terms

Table 1.1 Relationship between creativity and change in overseas tourism arrivals in UK cities, 2000–2003

	Bohemian Index Rank	*Overseas visitor change rank 2000–2003*
Manchester	1	2
London	2	12
Leicester	2	4
Nottingham	4	5
Bristol	5	10
Brighton/Hove	6	7
Birmingham	7	1
Coventry	8	7
Cardiff	9	7
Edinburgh	10	11
Liverpool	17	3
Newcastle-upon-Tyne	21	5

(Richards 2007) to smaller cities such as Liverpool and Newcastle, which both score poorly on the creativity indices.

The global economy

Florida's view of urban economies has also been criticized for lacking global scope. Friedman (2005) agrees with Florida that creative people are essential assets in the modern economy, but he argues that these people can be found anywhere. Globalization has effectively made the world 'flat' in economic terms, so that where creative people live is no longer so important as the skills they have. For Florida, cities should strive to attract creative people to move there, whereas Friedman argues that transnational firms are seeking out the creative class in the places they live now.

Wider critique of creativity

In addition to the specific critique of Florida's work, more general complaints have been made about the current vogue for creative development.

Creativity is a bandwagon

One of the most frequently heard complaints is that creativity is simply the latest in a whole line of trendy development bandwagons that cities have jumped on. This process has been stimulated by the ideas of Florida (2002), who warns that cities will get left behind if they do not become creative now.

There is nothing unique about uniqueness

As discussed above, the notion of creativity sits comfortably with the post-modern notion of identity and wanting to be different. In fact, most places actually want to be not just different but 'unique'. The problem is that there is actually nothing unique about uniqueness. If every destination profiles itself as unique, then the consumer has to go back to generic categories and themes to choose between them (or their copycat 'creative' strategies).

There's nothing new about creativity

In spite of the recent attention paid to creative development strategies, it should be recognized that the application of creativity to urban and rural development is not new. Amsterdam and Florence were the 'creative cities' of the sixteenth century, opening their doors to the 'creative classes' long before Florida. Artists' colonies have long existed and been a source of tourism development, as in the cases of St Ives in Cornwall (United Kingdom) or the Lake District (United Kingdom).

The creative turn is an academic fiction

One of the most compelling critiques of the creative turn is that it stems from an overly academic reading of society. Just because academics, as part of the intellectual superstructure of the information society and arguably members of the creative class, have decided that there is a shift towards creativity does not mean that it actually exists outside the academy. As Gibson and Klocker (2004) have pointed out, academics are part of the critical superstructure producing creative discourse, because it suits their world view. For the vast majority of the world's population, 'creativity' is actually as far out of their reach as the economic riches that it is supposed to generate.

You can't manage spontaneity

Spontaneity is an important part of creativity. The visitor and the resident alike appreciate the unexpected, which the spontaneous creative process can throw up. Cities such as Barcelona are seen as attractive because of their surprise element – the chance encounter with street art or traditional festivals (Vallbona and Richards 2007). This can be seen as the obverse of 'staging', which as Binkhorst points out in Chapter 8 relies on the McDonaldized principles of predictability and calculability. It is also anathema to the 'Fantasy City', which is one reason why Hannigan argues in Chapter 3 that creative strategies offer an alternative. This creates a dilemma for the creative destination – how do you maintain spontaneous creativity in a setting where the ability to deliver a predictable experience is

vital in attracting visitors? Evans, in Chapter 4 of this volume, also argues that creativity cannot be branded, because brands kill spontaneity.

The idea that creativity is a freer form of cultural expression than the (re)production of culture is attractive not just to the producers of creative products, but also to many policy analysts, particularly in free market economies. As Hannigan (2002a: 3) comments: 'at the same time that regions have the power and resources to secure cultural institutions and practices through subsidization, protection, and regulation, they interfere with the ability of artists, writers, and performers to grow and adapt.'

The attractions of creativity

In spite of these criticisms, Florida's arguments continue to receive considerable attention, not least from the public sector, desperate for strategies to improve economic performance and quality of life. Creative development strategies have quickly spread to different cities, national governments and international bodies. For example, the United Nations Conference on Trade and Development recently published a report on 'Creative Industries and Development' (2004) and UNESCO launched a 'creative cities network'.

Why has Florida attracted so much attention? His arguments seem to have arrived at the right time for many cities and regions struggling with development issues in a globalizing environment. His league table ranking cities by their level of creativity appealed to policymakers who saw themselves caught up in a competitive struggle to attract employment and consumer spending. Other factors include:

- The attractiveness of creativity as a concept which fits well with the current 'fast policy' climate (Peck 2005) and neoliberal concepts of the entrepreneurial city. Creativity also seems to have a more general appeal linked to the desire for change in a new millennium and the increasing attention paid to personal development and fulfilment.
- The development of the 'experience economy' (Pine and Gilmore 1999), which seems to link strongly with the idea of the creative class. The creative class are apparently the 'imagineers' needed to develop experiences for the experience economy.
- The concept of the 'creative city' or 'creative region' also fits with wider trends in management theory, which emphasize the value of creativity as an economic resource (Porter 1998). O'Donnell (2004: 11) remarks, 'Pop management theory has, since the early 1980s, raised "creativity" to the level of an entrepreneurial imperative.' As Gibson and Klocker (2004) point out, the creativity gospel is also spread by academics (the current volume being a case in point) and celebrity 'gurus' such as Richard Florida and Charles Landry.

Richards and Wilson (2006: 15) also identify a number of reasons why creativity is now more popular than traditional cultural approaches to development:

- Culture is often associated with 'high culture', which has a traditional, staid image.
- The cultural sector is not perceived as being very flexible or dynamic.
- The creative sector is broader than the cultural sector alone, covering more sub-sectors and having a greater total value and employment impact.
- The creative sector is closely linked to innovation and change.
- The creative industries include many more aspects of visual consumption (advertising, cinema, design, fashion, video games).
- Women often play a key role in the development of the creative industries.

The dynamic image of creativity is also one of its attractions. Research of Local Authority image-making in the Netherlands (Cachet *et al.* 2003) shows that 'dynamism' is one of the most desirable images for an area to have. Creativity, which is linked closely to ideas of innovation and novelty, is therefore an attractive aspect of development strategies, rather than 'culture', which tends to be linked to tradition and a lack of change.

The emphasis on creativity can also be linked to a wider shift towards a plural vision of society in an era of increased mobility and social fragmentation. 'Culture', usually linked to existing social groups and structures, is not as flexible as 'creativity', which is process-based, fluid and apparently more egalitarian. The growing diversity of postmodern society is also seen as a resource for creativity. As Shaw (Chapter 12) and Collins and Kunz (Chapter 13) argue in this volume, ethnic diversity is a potential stimulus for creativity.

Another feature of contemporary society which dovetails well with creative development models is the blurring of boundaries between production and consumption. As Binkhorst argues in Chapter 8, involving the consumer in the production of experiences is now so important that one can talk of a process of 'co-production'. Experiences therefore depend not just on the creativity of the producer, but also the consumer. Attractions which do not allow space for the consumer to create their own experiences or help to shape the experiences produced by creative enterprises, are arguably not exploiting the full potential of 'creative tourism' (Richards 2001).

Whether one accepts Florida's arguments or not, there does seem to be a feeling among many place managers that there is a link between creativity and place performance. If the indices developed by Florida cannot identify the exact causes of this relationship, this is perhaps of little relevance for those engaged in concrete development and marketing strategies, and perhaps of greater relevance to academics. The key question for the policy-makers is whether such strategies work or not. In the end, the best advice

may be to take a balanced view. A report prepared for the Department of Canadian Heritage (Donald and Morrow 2003: ii) attempts to provide such a balance, citing successful examples of creative strategies while warning against the 'dangers of a quick and careless translation of the talent model into public policies'. In particular, they argue that 'surface-level place marketing may have the potential of glossing over the essential investments required to maintain and enhance a creative city'. But if creativity is applied purposefully and carefully, it has the potential to provide many benefits for the host community.

The main problem, as Peck (2005: 744) suggests, may be figuring out just who the 'creative class' actually are, and how to deal with their needs:

> figuring out what the Creative Class wants means adopting an entirely new analytical and political mindset, and, even then, learning to accept that creatives will not be pushed around, that their behavior will be difficult to predict, and that above all they need space to 'actualize their identities'.

What is creativity?

The extensive discussions surrounding creative development and marketing strategies raise the important question – what is 'creativity'? In fact, in most of the discussions of creativity, one finds no definition of the term. This may be because creativity is seen as something 'mystical' and multidimensional and therefore difficult to pin down (Florida 2002). But there are a few key elements of creativity which tend to be widely repeated, and which also turn up in the many definitions that do exist. For example, the Oxford English Dictionary defines creativity as being 'inventive, imaginative; showing imagination as well as routine skill'. Chartrand (1990: 2) argues that '[individual] creativity occurs when an individual steps beyond traditional ways of doing, knowing and making'. These ideas suggest that creativity is above all about developing new ways of thinking and doing, which explains the close link often made between creativity and innovation.

In this sense, creativity could be applied to tourism through the development of new products or experiences; of new forms of consumption or new tourism spaces. Arguably, any form of tourism which is related to imagination, whether the imaginative capabilities of the producers or consumers of tourism, could be considered to fall within the sphere of 'creative tourism'. As Evans argues in Chapter 4, this includes a wide range of areas including design, architecture and the media, and Cloke in Chapter 2 extends the creative range to include the creativity of nature.

In fact, as the chapters in this volume show, there are a large number of ways in which creativity is interpreted and applied, both within the wider cultural development field and in tourism in particular. Among the uses of the term 'creativity' in this volume, we can identify:

- creativity as a product
- creativity as an experience
- creativity as innovation
- creativity as a marketing strategy
- creativity as an industry sector
- creativity as a social development strategy
- creativity as a landscape
- creativity as problem-solving
- creativity as a blanket term for heritage and cultural tourism
- creativity as a challenge to identity
- creativity as difference and diversity.

It is clear that there remains much discussion about the nature, scope and application of creativity, and that this debate will continue for some time to come. In the meantime, our approach in this volume is to examine the many ways in which concepts of 'creativity' have been applied in the tourism sphere, and the differing outcomes which these applications have had, regardless of the purely creative content of such ideas.

Developing creativity

In order for creative development strategies to work, there seems to be general agreement that there needs to be a critical mass of creative production, and this in turn is reliant on a sufficient volume of creative consumption. Ritzer (1999) has argued that the developing (post)modern consumer economy is driving a shift away from the means of production towards the 'new means of consumption'. The new means of consumption comprise the range of settings that facilitate people in their consumption activities, including fast food restaurants, cruise ships, casinos and museums (and increasingly the mixture of different settings). The need to 'enchant' these basic settings in order to entice the consumer entails a creative imperative, something that the Disney Corporation and other key experience producers have long understood. The difference is that now even the most experienced experience producers have to learn to engage consumers in the process of designing, distributing and performing the experiences themselves, to the extent that they become 'prosumers'.

This new landscape of prosumption offers opportunities for a range of strategies for creative tourism development, for example:

- tourism based on the consumption of creative media;
- tourism based on the creative input of the consumers themselves;
- traditional forms of tourism consumed or produced in a more creative way.

The importance of image in the new means of prosumption also gives partic-

ular prominence to the creative industries as a channel for developing and diffusing destination images. This is evident in the current trend towards 'film-induced tourism' (Beeton 2001). As Cloke outlines in Chapter 2 of this volume, film and TV productions are becoming increasingly important as tools for destination marketing: attracting tourists to locations where they are set or filmed. In some cases, film-induced tourism may relate to other areas of creativity, as in the case of films based on books, which can support the development of 'literary landscapes' (VisitBritain 2007). In other cases the pure act of filming in a particular location may generate tourism, even if the story does not relate to the 'real' (or even imagined) setting of the film, such as 'spaghetti westerns' attracting visitors to the Almería province of Spain, a frequent stand-in for the 'Wild West'.

As Vanolo (2006: 7) puts it:

> the construction of the image of the creative city lies in the building up of visual symbols – landmarks – of creativity, specific narrations, emphasizing the creative milieu of the cities, and the location of connected functional and, above all, cultural references.

This process is, Vanolo argues, based on a range of key ideas which are increasingly utilized in creative development and marketing strategies:

- The 'buzz', i.e. scenes with people, and particularly scenes of people meeting and chatting, with a special attention towards situations of multi-ethnicity.
- The local art scene, referring both to 'official' and more 'popular' forms of art.
- Nightlife, both in the case of fancy restaurants and other places for young and trendy people.
- Public spaces, particularly natural environments and parks, together with outdoor sport situations and landmark buildings.
- Representations of high quality education, both for young people and professionals, widely considered as an essential element of urban competitiveness.

What Vanolo essentially seems to be talking about here is the creation of a 'cosmopolitan' atmosphere, which then becomes packaged in marketing strategies. The picture that emerges is one of a general shift away from tangible culture and heritage towards intangible culture and creativity. This affects tourism products of all kinds (Figure 1.1) as well as the cultural tourism field specifically (Figure 1.2). Destinations are having to learn new ways of developing and marketing tourism as the emphasis moves from traditional forms of culture to new, more diffuse resources.

The modern art of creative development therefore lies in transforming intangible elements of the culture of a place into 'experiences' that can be

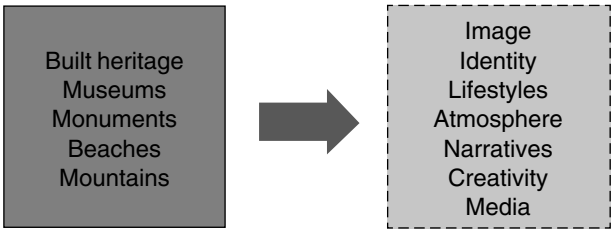


Figure 1.1 The shift from tangible to intangible tourism resources.

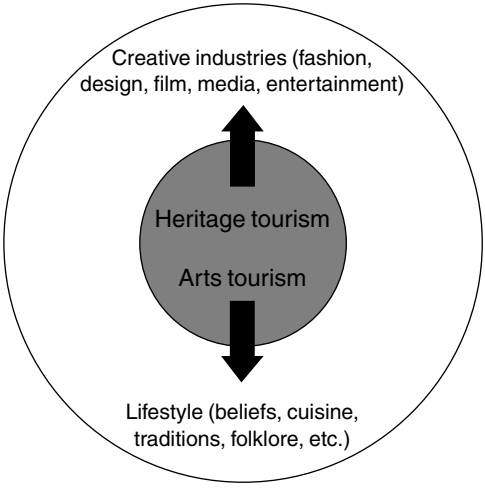


Figure 1.2 The shift from tangible to intangible cultural resources in tourism.

consumed by tourists. This is a complex process that requires the coordination of cultural and creative hardware, software and orgware:

- creative hardware – infrastructure/spaces for creative production, consumption and prosumption;
- creative software – atmosphere/ambience, fashion, quality of life, perceived diversity, 'vibrancy';
- creative orgware – sectors, industries, clusters, policies, governance.

Because many regions already have creative hardware, much attention has been paid in recent years to the development of creative orgware and software. In terms of orgware a number of cities and regions have established organizations responsible for the creative development process, such as Creative London, Vancouver's Creative City Task Force, Creative Auckland and the Cool Cities Initiative in Michigan. As Landry (2005) indicates,

these organizations provide creative spaces and other support, such as financial and business advice, information and networking. These types of organizational development are spreading rapidly from one city to another. For example, a recent report on Creative New York (City Futures Inc. 2005) recommended that New York establish a centralized coordinating body for the creative industries, modelled on Creative London.

Destinations have also begun emphasizing their software, such as 'quality of life' for citizens and visitors alike. Prentice and Andersen (Chapter 6) illustrate the impact of these changes in French towns which have shifted from conservation of their historic fabric in the 1980s to the current focus on instilling pride in the residents to creating a liveable (animated) city. The city is no longer just a machine for living, but a landscape for enjoying, experiencing and tasting. This also seems to mark a shift away from the primacy of the tourist 'gaze' into other (multi)sensory realms of production and consumption. This 'sensory shift' (e.g. Dann and Jacobsen 2003; Ferrari *et al.* 2007) is also marked by the growing importance of intangible culture in cultural tourism products and marketing.

The growing role of intangible culture and creativity in tourism production and consumption raises a new challenge for destinations, because much intangible culture appears to be more footloose than tangible cultural heritage. Mobile intangible culture presents more problems in terms of protecting intellectual property than tangible heritage, as movie makers and music companies have discovered in recent years. Protecting the intellectual property bound up in intangible tourism resources requires linking creativity to place by establishing a link in the mind of the visitor between particular manifestations of creativity and specific locations. This also tends to privilege local, embedded knowledge over universal, abstract knowledge. In the past, cultural tourism has tended to be dominated by universal symbols related to high culture, such as Greek myths, the works of Shakespeare, Van Gogh or Picasso. This system was supported by the use of high culture to develop the identity of the nation state, but the rise of the new regionalism has now produced a raft of more localized, embedded cultural symbols alongside these global or national symbols.

The embedding of creativity has also allowed specific locations to accumulate and promote 'clusters' of creative activity. These clusters have become important not just in the local economy, but also as magnets for the 'creative class' and as a resource for developing a creative image (Florida 2002). Much of the current thinking about the 'creative' therefore also has its roots in the study of clusters and networks in the past 30 years (e.g. Simmie 2001). The combination of creative hardware, orgware and software can be used by cities and regions to develop a range of experiences for tourists as well as residents. Richards and Wilson (2006) summarize these combinations into three basic types of creative tourism experience:

- *Creative spectacles*. Creative and innovative activities which then form the basis of more passive tourist experiences as spectacles (i.e. production of creative experiences for passive consumption by tourists).
- *Creative spaces*. Creative enclaves populated by cultural creatives to attract visitors (often informally at first) due to the vibrant atmosphere that such areas often exude (e.g. Down Under Manhattan Bridge Overpass – DUMBO – in Brooklyn).
- *Creative tourism*. Active participation by tourists in creative activities, skill development and/or creative challenge can form the basis of tourist experiences, which can also imply a convergence of creative spectacles and creative spaces.

In tourism terms, the shift towards creativity can be seen as part of an evolution in the basis of tourist experiences (Figure 1.3). In the early stages of the development of mass tourism, the essential value of holidays for many people was the aspect of 'having' – having a holiday conferred a certain status, an intangible extension of having physical possessions such as a car, or a colour TV. As holidays became more of a normal part of everyday life, the emphasis shifted to what one saw or 'did' on holiday. This is the point at which Urry's (1990) tourist gaze became a primary discourse in the analysis of the production and consumption of tourism. However, more recently people have begun to tire of seeing an endless series of 'sights' or 'doing' a series of standardized activities.

There is evidence to suggest that in current modes of tourism consumption, the source of distinction lies increasingly in the arena of 'becoming' – moving away from having or consuming goods and services towards becoming transformed by the tourism experience itself, as Binkhorst notes in Chapter 8. In the past, cultural tourism seemed to consist of collecting

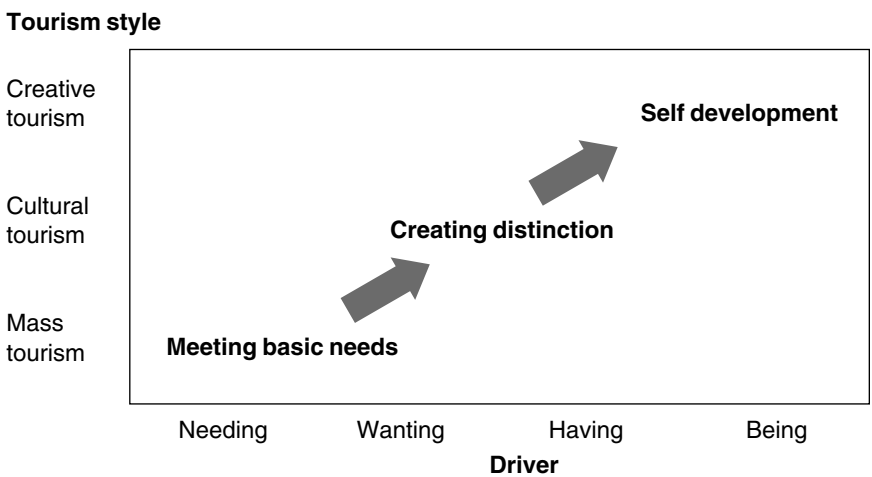


Figure 1.3 Changes in the drivers of tourism over time.

'must see sights', which acted as badges of cultural consumption. Now it seems that existential elements of cultural consumption, such as 'soaking up the atmosphere' are enough. Many 'cultural tourists' these days seem to want to become part of the local community and have direct contact with the everyday lives of others (Richards 2007). Wang (1999) emphasizes the growing importance of 'existential authenticity'. The idea of 'being' on holiday places more emphasis on the creativity of the tourist, rather than seeing them as passive consumers or gazers upon a series of staged experiences.

This in turn has shed light on the performative dimensions of tourism. As Edensor (1998) shows in the case of tourists visiting the Taj Mahal, the roles that tourists play become an important part not only of their own holiday experience, but also those of other tourists. In taking on different roles as tourists, people also develop narratives about themselves and their travel (Noy 2006). Travel experiences therefore become the raw materials used to develop a life biography, and travellers can also play with and shift their identities as they travel (Richards and Wilson 2004b).

In order to play their role effectively, tourists need to develop their performance skills (in other words, creativity). Highly developed tourist performance skills allow one to shift roles and become a prosumer rather than just a consumer. The destinations that are visited by these tourists can also draw upon the multiple identities of tourists to create or enhance their own identities. In the same way that tourists play with their identities, places can also take on and develop multiple identities. In the case of Amsterdam, for example, Dahles (1998) demonstrates how the city has two faces – the historic, cultural city and the liberal city linked to the Red Light District and the gay scene (see Hodes *et al*., Chapter 11 in this volume).

The administrators of the city of Barcelona recognize that creativity discourse has a role to play in underpinning the image and identity of the city, not least by staging the 2003 Year of Design event. In terms of how this has penetrated the popular consciousness of visitors, our research indicates a close link between the tourism consumption patterns and identities of cultural tourists and the creative elements of the city. Barcelona is seen as a 'creative' city, particularly by those working in the cultural sector and cultural tourists. The city has also shifted towards intangible culture and creativity in its tourism marketing, and is now beginning to develop 'creative tourism'.

Surveys of tourists visiting cultural sites in Barcelona (Richards 2004; Richards and Wilson 2007), indicated that almost 58 per cent considered the city to be 'creative', almost the same proportion that thought it was 'historic' (Table 1.2). Perhaps not surprisingly, those who were least likely to see Barcelona as 'creative' were beach tourists, who are arguably the classic 'unskilled consumers' (Richards 1996a). But the group that was most likely to label Barcelona as a creative city were those who did not see themselves as 'tourists'. This group consisted of younger (predominantly 20–30), highly

educated, professional, white collar workers with cultural occupations, who were more likely to be frequent repeat visitors, and more likely to be seeking 'atmosphere'. They also saw Barcelona as an architectural city and a multicultural or diverse city. They also tended to have made more visits to the Centre de Cultura Contemporània de Barcelona (CCCB) and the Raval than other tourists, underlining their predilection for 'creative spaces'.

Different groups of tourists clearly saw and consumed the city in different ways. Heritage tourists were the most likely to appreciate the historic and

Table 1.2 Image of Barcelona as a city by tourist type

	What type of city is Barcelona? (% respondents)						
Tourist type	*Creative city*	*Art city*	*Historic city*	*Cultural city*	*Modern architectural city*	*Multicultural/ diverse city*	*Industrial city*
Cultural tourist	64.3	62.8	66.8	78.1	51.0	51.5	18.4
City tourist	61.1	64.9	66.4	79.4	42.7	42.0	19.1
Heritage tourist	61.5	61.5	84.6	92.3	46.2	30.8	30.8
Beach/sun tourist	41.7	41.7	58.3	69.4	41.7	33.3	13.9
Business tourist	66.7	66.7	58.3	83.3	50.0	41.7	16.7
Don't like the term 'tourist'	68.3	60.0	60.0	73.3	58.3	53.3	20.0
All visitors	57.8	56.3	59.3	72.7	44.2	44.7	17.4

Source: ATLAS surveys 2004. N = 396.

Table 1.3 Correlation between images of Barcelona and its image as a 'creative city'

	Creative city correlation (Pearson's r)
Multicultural/diverse city	0.39
Modern architecture city	0.36
Art city	0.34
Historic city	0.28
Cultural city	0.27
Nightlife city	0.25
Fun city	0.25
Industrial city	0.23
Safe city	0.19
City of open spaces	0.17
Friendly city	0.17
Maritime city	0.16
Shopping city	0.15
Working city	0.12
Beach resort	0.09

cultural aspects of the city, including its industrial heritage. On the other hand, they did not notice the diversity of the city as much as 'cultural tourists' or even beach tourists. Heritage tourists were also the most likely to have visited classic heritage sites outside Barcelona, such as the religious mountain of Montserrat or the Roman ruins of Tarragona. 'Cultural tourists' visited many more sights connected with iconic figures such as Gaudí and Miró, including the Sagrada Familia, La Pedrera, Casa Batlló, Parc Güell and Fundació Miró. However, they were less likely to have visited popular cultural attractions (such as Futbol Club de Barcelona) or the town of Sitges (see Binkhorst, Chapter 8).

The image of Barcelona as a creative city was most strongly correlated with its image as a multicultural or diverse city, followed by architecture and art (Table 1.3). This seems to support the link between creativity and diversity suggested by Florida, at least in terms of city image. Creativity was also strongly correlated with a desire to live in the city ($r = 0.207$), which indicates that 'creatives' may also be tempted to move to places, such as Barcelona, that have a creative image.

In terms of motivation, the 'cultural tourists' were most likely to be motivated by learning new things (apparently vindicating the link between learning and cultural tourism posed by Richards 1996b) (Table 1.4). 'Atmosphere' seemed to be relatively important for most tourist types, although it scored highest with heritage tourists and those not liking the term 'tourist'. For heritage tourists the most important stimulus was 'local' culture, which seems to emphasize the fact that they are seeking 'embedded' culture. The 'non-tourists' were least likely to be motivated by sightseeing, and more frequently motivated by entertainment than by 'cultural' motives.

These figures seem to indicate close links between the creative image of Barcelona, and various aspects of the tangible and intangible culture of the city. In contrast to the analysis of the relationship between creativity and tourism at national level presented above (Table 1.1), the Barcelona example does seem to suggest that there is a direct link between creative aspects of the city and its attractiveness for certain types of tourist. The

Table 1.4 Importance of different motivations for visiting Barcelona (% very important)

Tourist type	*Learning new things*	*Entertainment*	*Local culture*	*Atmosphere*	*Sightseeing*
Cultural tourist	51.6	51.2	47.6	48.7	43.2
City tourist	40.6	48.0	37.5	53.9	47.3
Heritage tourist	46.2	38.5	76.9	66.7	46.2
Beach/sun tourist	38.2	55.9	41.2	57.1	44.1
Business tourist	41.7	50.0	50.0	50.0	41.7
Don't like the term 'tourist'	16.7	41.7	31.7	65.0	21.7

differential role played by creativity in city image for different groups of tourists may explain why tourist flows in general seem to be relatively unaffected by creativity ratings for a city.

Barcelona has begun to capitalize on its creative image by developing a 'creative tourism portal', which very soon after its opening in 2006 was generating considerable interest (Anon 2006: 4):

> The city council and tourism board have announced two new product lines to develop visits related to Catalan language learning, up by 60 per cent, and one to build on the success of the Year of Gastronomy, which created a new genre of visit for foodies and gourmets. Meanwhile, the recently unveiled Creative Tourism portal (www.barcelonacreativa.info) is receiving 50 enquiries per day.

This process of creative development is also being driven at grass roots level by emerging networks of creative producers and consumers, such as the 'Terminal B' website for Barcelona (www.terminalb.org).

The creative dimension of tourism is therefore no longer based on the singular production of meaning through the institutions of high culture (museums) and hierarchy (as is usually the case in cultural tourism), but also through creativity, atmosphere and narrative. The creative turn therefore implies a change in the form of production of 'culture'. Whereas culture is physically present in the museum in terms of material objects or cultural 'products', creativity as a process is intangible, often implied rather than stated, and exists in culturescapes, flows of culture and creativity across particular areas of a city or region (see Russo and Arias Sans, Chapter 10 in this volume), or the exotic and unfamiliar, crystallized into ethnic enclaves (see Shaw, Chapter 12 and Collins and Kunz, Chapter 13).

With the rise of intangible culture, there is also a more important role for 'fashion'. The atmosphere of places can change much more quickly than their physical landscapes or museum collections, and new creative elements can be added to the destination overnight. The tendency for destinations to 'borrow' from (or copy) each other also causes waves of fashionable creativity to sweep the globe, creating new nodes of creative consumption in their wake. This has been the case with many forms of festival, including the development of ethnic events such as melas, and Irish festivals, film festivals and museum nights. The creative sector is particularly useful in this regard, because creativity means new culture and new cultural forms, in contrast to 'culture' or 'heritage', which often centre on the preservation of the past and solidification of existing structures. However, developing the new, fashionable, dynamic creative product is not as simple as adding the word 'creative' to a place name. Successful creative development is a complex process which needs to recognize the delicate relationship between past, present and future, between high and popular culture, and between space and place.

Richards and Wilson (2007) identify key elements of creative development which tend to ensure their smooth incorporation into large scale urban redevelopment schemes:

- *Clustering* – Creative enterprises need a network of colleagues and suppliers, and clustering is therefore seen as providing an impulse to both individual and collective creativity.
- *Consumers* – Audiences are vital to the creative industries, and in many cases creative enterprises need to attract audiences or consumers to specific locations.
- *Co-makership* – In order to function well, creative clusters need to involve both producers and consumers in a process of co-makership.
- *Clarity* – Attracting audiences depends on a certain level of visibility within the urban fabric, and the ability of potential audiences to 'read' the creative landscape. It is also important that the creative enterprises have a certain level of permeability for the consumer.
- *Confidence* – Developers must have the confidence to invest in creativity, but trust between creative individuals is also important. Cities and regions must also have the confidence in their ability to make such developments work, and to be able to sell success.

Given this level of complexity, it is perhaps not surprising that there is an easy link between creative development and large urban areas.

The location of creativity

In much of the literature on creativity, there has been an explicit or implicit linkage of creativity and the urban (see Evans, Chapter 4). The tendency to locate creativity within the urban sphere stems from the dynamic nature of cities and their role as centres for innovation and change (Amin and Thrift 2002; Simmie 2001). The role of Florida (2002) in championing the 'creative class' has also strengthened the link between creativity and cities, because the 'creative class' according to his definition tends to concentrate in cosmopolitan, urban areas. The idea that diversity is an important resource for creativity has also tended to strengthen the links between creativity and larger cities or metropolises. Many of the chapters in the current volume also examine different aspects of creativity in urban environments, and underline the tendency for clustering and the need for large audiences which tend to favour the urban location of creativity.

Hannigan (2002a: 7) also argues that cities are 'strategic sites for research' in this respect, because they concentrate global flows of capital, information, images and people, 'the dense human relationships out of which culture flows'. The contemporary metropolis therefore constitutes a 'petri dish' in which 'the formation of new claims materializes and assumes concrete forms' (Sassen 2001: 167).

The idea of large cities as laboratories in which cultures grow from diversity means that cities are also trying to find ways to make themselves more 'cosmopolitan'. A recent report by Bloomfield and Bianchini (2003) for Birmingham City Council came up with a number of suggestions about how the city could plan for the 'cosmopolitan city'. They advocate an intercultural approach to the development of cultural facilities to achieve this. One problem they identify is the segregation of cultural facilities between ethnic groups, an effect arguably produced by the location of community facilities in the periphery. The report suggests a number of strategies to counter such problems, including relocating cultural venues to the city centre, encouraging mainstream cultural institutions in the city centre to make cultural diversity integral to their activities or adopting a very aggressive marketing strategy to promote peripherally located venues in order to achieve a city-wide appeal.

Such strategies can also be seen as part of wider attempts to develop social cohesion within cities and larger regions. This discussion has become very problematic in recent years, because of the apparent 'clash of civilizations' (Huntington 1996), and the emerging critique of 'multicultural' approaches to social cohesion which have arisen as a result. In such a climate, the concept of 'culture' becomes overburdened with meaning and increasingly difficult to apply in 'multicultural' settings. This new challenge to 'culture' has suddenly increased the appeal of 'creativity' as a relatively value-free way of allowing different cultures to express themselves. The argument is neatly shifted from cultural specifics to the general process of expression.

Expressing creativity or cultural identity is something that eventually begins to claim public space. This in turn creates new challenges for the management of that space. More and more cities have therefore been stimulated to develop creative management strategies for public space. For example, many cities in the United States have specific events departments whose job is to choreograph the creative use of the city centre. In Chicago, the Mayor's Office of Special Events is 'a city office designed to present public programs all year round' (www.cityofchicago.org/specialevents). The city is effectively 'programmed' by coordinating 'all efforts related to the event or festival including booking performances, organizing operations, facilitating sponsor partner participation and assisting in promotion'. Such creative programming efforts rely on both utilizing indigenous talent and attracting external creative performers.

The tendency of creativity to be linked to adversity is also one reason why cities, with their deprived neighbourhoods and *banlieus* (Evans, Chapter 4) are seen as nodes of creativity. As Hannigan points out in Chapter 3, the presence of a 'controlled edge' seems to be important for urban creativity. Creative people are supposed to 'live on the edge', and often perform a bridgehead function in colonizing declining areas of the city and making them attractive for others to live in, work in and visit. This is

evident in the 'new tourist areas' of London analyzed by Maitland (Chapter 5) and also in the 'artistic enclaves' of other cities, such as the Jordaan in Amsterdam, the Raval in Barcelona and more directly engineered clusters such as DUMBO in Brooklyn. The 'controlled edge' concept is particularly applicable to the kind of ethnic enclaves described by Shaw (Chapter 12) and Collins and Kunz (Chapter 13), as these inner-city areas were often seen as areas to be avoided in the past, but they are now being 'pacified' for safe consumption by (largely white, middle class) residents of other areas of the city as well as tourists (Zukin 1995). The creative sector has often been at the forefront of pacification campaigns, whether in terms of 'pacification by cappuccino' (ibid.) or 'pacification by fiesta' (Richards 2007).

The development of creative strategies in cities is also closely linked to narratives of design and architecture in the contemporary city. As we have seen in the case of Barcelona, architecture, design and creativity are positively linked in the minds of visitors as part of the 'creative landscape' of the city. This linkage can be positively stimulated by the creation of events and attractions. For example, during the Gaudí Year in Barcelona (2002), a number of new attractions and itineraries related to the Catalan architect were opened in the city. This in turn tended to attract people interested in architecture and design, and the appreciation of visitors for the architectural elements of the city increased as a result (Turisme de Barcelona 2003).

However, there are also counterpoints to the prevailing urban creativity paradigm. As Cloke shows in Chapter 2 of this volume, creativity is also an aspect of rural environments, and even of nature itself. There are a number of reasons why the 'rural' has become a creative space to rival that of the 'urban':

- The rural has become a creative haven for those retreating from the city.
- The rural has long been a location for creative clusters (witness the development of rural artists' colonies and the creation of new rural museums and crafts centres).
- Nature itself is creative (see Cloke, Chapter 2).
- There is increasing de-differentiation between 'urban' and 'rural'.

In addition, the lure of a rural existence seems to have been particularly strong for people from the creative sector. As Shaw and Williams (1994) have shown in the case of South-West England, rural areas which attract tourists can also be attractive places for lifestyle entrepreneurs to relocate. Richards and Wilson (2006) have indicated that most of the existing examples of 'creative tourism' are to be found in rural areas, and Raymond (Chapter 9) illustrates some of the dynamics of these developments in rural New Zealand.

It seems that in many cases the biggest spurs to creative development in rural areas have been adversity and the relative lack of employment opportunities. However, the growing relocation of creative entrepreneurs to rural

areas has also meant that these regions now face challenges of 'serial reproduction' through the increasing development of 'rural tourism'. As more people living in (or migrating to) rural areas seek new sources of income, they often turn to some form of rural tourism accommodation (such as *casas rurales*, *gîtes* or manor houses). In the European Union, serial reproduction of rural tourism products has been underwritten by subsidies from rural development programmes such as LEADER and INTERREG. Very often, however, there is a lack of business networks and other enabling resources to support entrepreneurship (Soisalon-Soininen and Lindroth 2007).

In an increasingly competitive market, rural tourism enterprises also need to differentiate themselves. Unfortunately, in the modern symbolic economy, it seems that nature is not enough (Pretes 1995). The basic natural resources of rural or wilderness areas need to be added to through narrative creation. This generates lots of rural consumption space in need of animation and consumers (Cloke 1993).

One of the solutions to the growing problems of rural tourism has been the development of creative tourism products. In the United Kingdom, rural development agencies have promoted the creation of crafts tourism, arts festivals, workshops and masterclasses (Rural Regeneration Cumbria 2006). The EUROTEX project (Richards 2005) advocated the development of creative experiences for tourists as a means of valorizing textile crafts in peripheral areas of the European Union, and similar strategies are now being applied in developing countries, such as Namibia (Miettinen 2004).

What apparently unites most of the urban and rural places that apply creativity to development strategies is the idea of adversity. Urban deprivation certainly seems to be a spur to developing creative strategies, as the cases of Huddersfield, Glasgow and Pittsburgh all testify, but also rural areas with few alternatives have turned to creativity for similar reasons. For example, the La Rioja wine region in Spain has turned to similar tactics to those employed by large cities, inviting star architects such as Frank Gehry and Santiago Calatrava to create iconic facilities for wine experiences and creative tourism. In northern Italy, the village of Viganella has turned its location at the bottom of a deep, sunless alpine valley to creative advantage. By installing a giant mirror on the hillside opposite, the village has managed to create artificial sunlight during the sunless days from November to February, and create an innovative tourist attraction in the process.

Barriers to creative development

There are also reasons to believe that it will not be easy for all destinations to develop creative tourism strategies. Although the desire for creative development may exist, there are a number of practical barriers which may intervene.

Shortage of creative skills

The development of creative attractions requires the acquisition of new skills, on the part of both planners and those providing the attraction. Are those currently employed in the tourism industry and/or the creative sector able to develop the performative, interpretive and pedagogic skills required to stage and facilitate creative experiences?

Lack of creative investment

The development of creativity also implies investment, not necessarily in physical infrastructure, but in intangible culture and orgware. In many cases, the creative sector finds it difficult to attract investment because there is a lack of visible assets or an obvious return. It is far easier to make the case for cultural 'hardware', such as art museums or theatres, since they are more widely understood as venues and more widely supported by the public sector.

Lack of creative audiences

Although the 'creative class' are now supposed to account for a large proportion of the population, it has to be recognized that many creative activities have a limited audience – effectively, most forms of creative tourism are forms of special interest tourism. There is a problem of reaching the target audience, which is often widely dispersed (as Raymond demonstrates in Chapter 9).

The cumulative disadvantage of creative locations

The fact that creativity is often spurred by adversity means that creative development may happen in areas which are at a disadvantage, for example in terms of economic structure or peripheral location (Garrod and Wilson 2003, 2004). This may hamper their tourism development, particularly where accessibility is a problem or the area has a poor image.

It is clear to us that creative development strategies in the sphere of tourism involve major challenges and pitfalls as well as potential rewards. In developing the material in the volume we have therefore attempted to provide a balanced view of the relationship between creativity and tourism. This is also clear from the selection of case study material, which illustrates successes, challenges and pitfalls. Hopefully this approach will allow readers to make up their own minds about the pros and cons of creative development strategies in relation to tourism.

Structure of this volume

This volume examines the relationship between creativity, tourism and development from a number of different disciplinary and thematic perspectives. The wide-ranging contributions are arranged into four main parts, dealing with the geographical implications of creativity in urban and rural locations, the development of creative products, the role of creative lifestyles and the creative industries.

Spaces, enclaves and clusters

This part examines the spatial implications of creative development strategies in regions and cities. In Chapter 2 Paul Cloke examines the relationship between creativity and tourism in rural environments, arguing that the concentration of research in urban environments overlooks the important role of creativity in rural spaces and in nature. He argues that tourism is one of the most important producers and commodifiers of rural space, and he identifies some of the creative activities which not only characterize rural tourism but also reconceive rurality as lived space. The creative acts of tasting, placing and performing are examined not just as means of recommodifying rural space on the part of the producers, but also as involving the performance of nature itself, as exemplified in the burgeoning field of ecotourism.

John Hannigan's analysis of the trajectory from fantasy city to creative city in Chapter 3 provides a useful overview of the underlying forces which have propelled cities and regions towards creative strategies. In particular he traces the decline of postwar concern with safety, which gave rise to the entertainment-centred fantasy city, and the concurrent rise of the creative city and the excitement offered by the 'controlled edge' of creative neighbourhoods and ethnic enclaves. He sees the search for new and more daring experiences on the part of the creative class as leading towards new products such as 'gulag guesthouses' and 'favela tourism'.

In all these developments there is a feeling that culture and creativity have become more central in the development process in general and the tourism development process in particular. In Chapter 4 Graeme Evans analyses the relationship between creative spaces, tourism and the city and illustrates the way in which cultural development strategies have been transformed into creative development strategies.

The way in which new tourism areas are created in large cities is the focus of Robert Maitland's analysis of two areas of London (Chapter 5). He examines the way in which global flows of tourists have become part of a 'cosmopolitan consuming class' that overlaps with the 'creative class' in developing and transforming city spaces for visitors and resident alike. In this sense, tourists in these new creative areas are very much in the role of 'prosumers'.

Building creative tourism supply

Creativity may abound in many different locations, but it still has to be produced and packaged for tourist consumption. This section of the book looks at how creativity is packaged and sold to locals and visitors alike. Richard Prentice and Vivien Andersen (Chapter 6) examine the way in which French towns have been creatively staged for tourism consumption. As time has passed, the goals of cultural policy have shifted away from heritage preservation towards more intangible heritage and the animation of cultural space.

In Chapter 7 Walter Santagata, Antonio Paolo Russo and Giovanna Segre examine the negative effects of tourism development on the creative sector in Venice, and argue the need for quality labels as an antidote to the problem of commodification. They also argue that there is a need for 'empathy' between the host population and tourists, in order to deliver an authentic and creative tourism experience.

In the case of Sitges – a small coastal town in Catalunya – Esther Binkhorst argues in Chapter 8 that the co-production of experiences is another possible solution to the commodification problem. However, her analysis shows that Sitges has been slow to move away from traditional beach tourism models, and still has a long way to go to develop fully fledged creative tourism.

In Chapter 9, Crispin Raymond presents a case study of the development of creative tourism in New Zealand and demonstrates some of the practical problems that arise in targeting the creative consumer. His refreshingly honest analysis of creative tourism development identifies many of the pitfalls, but also offers potential solutions to these problems.

Consuming lifestyles

Even when not actively involved in the co-production of creative experiences, tourists often consume the creative lifestyles of others. Just as the crafts content of rural areas is an attractive authentic part of the rural tourism experience, so the 'bohemian' lifestyles of students, the gay community and other 'minority groups' are important for giving places a 'creative' image and making them attractive for others who live in or visit the area (Florida 2002).

Thus, such vicarious consumption of creativity is made possible by the existence of a series of 'creative landscapes', as explained by Antonio Paolo Russo and Albert Arias Sans in the case of Venice (Chapter 10). They look in particular at the way in which students help to forge a creative landscape through their own cultural activities and the increasingly inter-cultural lifestyles that they lead.

Gay communities have also been argued by Florida (2002) to be important indicators of the tolerance and creativity of cities. This idea is tested

empirically in the city of Amsterdam by Stephen Hodes, Jacques Vork, Roos Gerritsma and Karin Bras in Chapter 11. They show that a decline in the tolerant image of Amsterdam has been responsible for making the city less attractive as a destination for the gay community.

Ethnic communities have also become important resources for the development of creativity, and the presence of ethnic enclaves in particular is seen as an attraction for tourists. In Chapter 12, Steve Shaw examines the development of ethnic enclaves in London and Montreal, and demonstrates how cosmopolitanism is being developed into a form of tourism consumption in these areas. He outlines some of the policy challenges for cities in developing such enclaves, as well as some of the potential pitfalls.

Jock Collins and Patrick Kunz examine the development of four ethnic precincts in Sydney in Chapter 13, and analyze the way in which relations of production, consumption and regulation interact to create cosmopolitan sites of diversity and tolerance that are attractive for the creative classes. They emphasize that visitor reaction to ethnic enclaves is not just a function of the ethnicity of the enclaves, but also the background of the visitors. In addition they point to an emerging divide between the views of the policy-makers and ethnic entrepreneurs regarding the creation and management of such enclaves.

These chapters appear to underline the fact that groups previously invisible in the tourist economy have been pushed to the forefront in the creative economy. However, one of the big questions that has to be dealt with here is the extent to which the production and consumption of diversity (or difference) and cosmopolitanism is actually creative.

Creative industries and tourism

One of the most common forms of creative strategy is the development of the 'creative industries'. This part examines three very different examples from the United Kingdom, South Africa and Singapore. In Chapter 14, Kevin Meethan and Julian Beer examine the relationship between tourism and the creative industries in Plymouth (United Kingdom). In particular, they look at how the impact of creative industry development models can be assessed, and how public–private partnerships can be used to develop creative facilities.

Christian Rogerson shows how creative industries policy has been developed in South Africa in Chapter 15, and argues that these developments are characteristic of an awakening interest in the creative sector in the developing world. National and local policies are geared towards developing the creative industries, and using them to position South Africa and its major cities as creative hubs, for example by making Johannesburg Africa's 'fashion capital' and kick-starting the local film industry.

Chapter 16 presents an analysis of the creative industries and tourism in Singapore. Can-Seng Ooi shows that the development of creative strategies

is problematic in a highly controlled society such as Singapore, not just because a high degree of control tends to stifle creative endeavour, but also because strongly imposed moral codes make it difficult to develop the tolerant, 'bohemian' atmosphere prescribed by Florida.

These case studies provide apparently different approaches to the question of creativity, but interestingly they all spring from their own problems of adversity – postapartheid reconstruction in South Africa, replacing lost manufacturing jobs with knowledge industries in Singapore and loss of defence jobs in Plymouth. In the same way that culture-led regeneration was often a response to the problems of economic restructuring in the 1980s and 1990s (as Evans shows in Chapter 4), so it seems that the response to the challenges of a postindustrial, postmodern economy lies in the creative sector.

In the concluding chapter, Richards and Wilson attempt to summarize the major themes which arise from the analyses presented in this volume, and identify areas for potential future research.

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